Aligning Datasets and Models for Evaluating Factuality in Generation

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Abstract

Recent pre-trained abstractive summarization systems have started to achieve credible performance, but a major barrier to their use in practice is their propensity to output summaries that are not faithful to the input and that contain factual errors. While a number of annotated datasets and statistical models for assessing factuality have been explored, there is no clear picture of what errors are most important to target or where current techniques are succeeding and failing. We explore both synthetic and human-labeled data sources for training models to identify factual errors in summarization, and study factuality at the word-, dependency-, and sentence-level. Our observations are threefold. First, errors differ significantly across datasets, and commonly-used training sets of simple synthetic errors do not reflect errors made on abstractive datasets like XSUM. Second, human-labeled data with fine-grained annotations provides a more effective training signal than sentence-level annotations or synthetic data. Finally, we show that our best factuality detection model enables training of more factual XSUM summarization models by allowing us to identify non-factual tokens in the training data.[1]

1 Introduction

Hallucination of unsupported or incorrect facts is a known shortcoming of current text generation and summarization models (Cao et al., 2018; Falke et al., 2019). This has been established for both abstractive summarization models (Maynez et al., 2020) and extractive summarization models (Kryscinski et al., 2020; Falke et al., 2019). Past work has explored using off-the-shelf frameworks such as entailment models (Falke et al., 2019) or QA systems (Durmus et al., 2020; Wang et al., 2020) to detect and sometimes correct errors in generated summaries. Another line of recent work has used synthetically generated data to specifically train models on the factuality detection task (Kryscinski et al., 2020; Zhao et al., 2020; Goyal and Durrett, 2020a). However, these efforts have focused on different datasets, summarization systems, and error types, often shedding little light on what errors state-of-the-art systems are actually making and how to fix them.

In this paper, we aim to answer two main questions. First, while synthetic data generation approaches are specifically designed for factuality evaluation, **do these align with actual errors made by generation models? We find the answer is no:** techniques using surface-level data corruption (Kryscinski et al., 2020; Zhao et al., 2020; Cao et al., 2020) or paraphrasing (Goyal and Durrett, 2020a) target inherently different error distributions than those seen in actual data, and models trained on these datasets perform poorly in practice. Furthermore, we show that different summarization domains, CNN/Daily Mail and XSum (which differ in the style of summaries and degree of abstraction), exhibit different error distributions in generated summaries, and the same dataset creation approach cannot be used across the board.

Second, we investigate the best approach for modeling and learning factuality, particularly for highly abstractive summarization settings (Narayan et al., 2018). Specifically, we compare the utility of fine-grained human annotations (such as error highlighting at the word-level or the span-level) with sentence-level factuality annotations. We use a prior factuality detection model capable of leveraging such fine-grained annotations (Goyal and Durrett, 2020a) and show that these allow us to more reliably detect errors as well as localize those errors within generated texts. In fact, fine-grained human annotations are almost essential for any of our techniques to work well with high-performing summarizers in the challenging XSUM setting.

Finally, we demonstrate a practical application

[1] Code and trained models will be released.

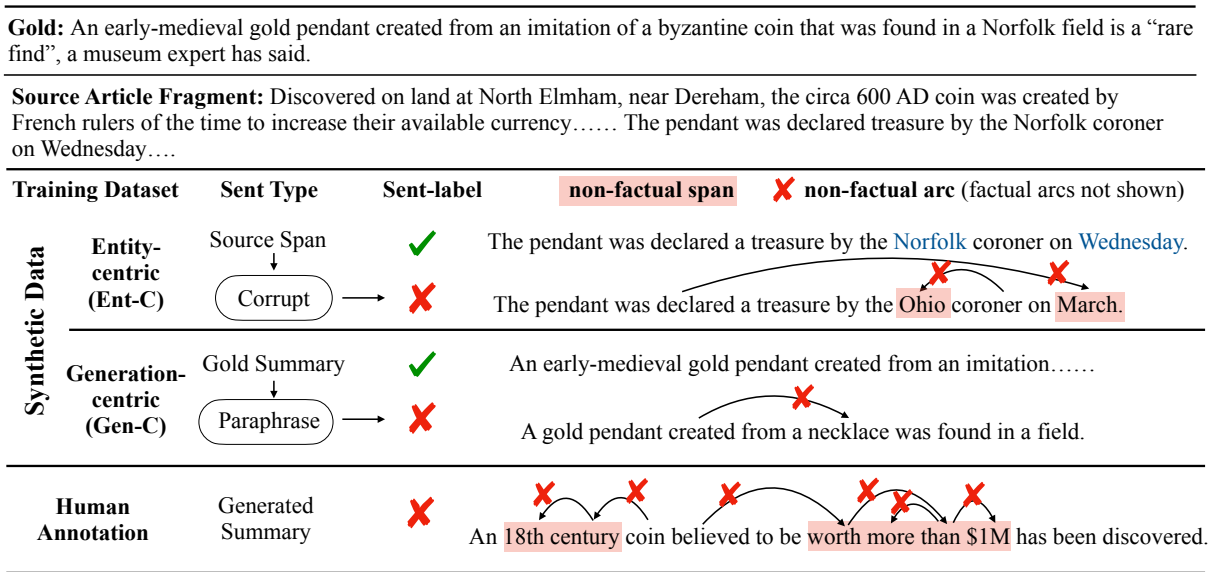

Figure 1: Examples from the synthetic and human annotated factuality datasets. The entity-centric and generation-centric approaches produce bad summaries from processes which can label their errors. All models can be adapted to give word-level, dependency-level, or sentence-level highlights, except for Gen-C.

for such error localization capabilities beyond interpretibility. Given noisy summarization data for training, we employ a modified training objective that leverages information about error spans in gold summaries, derived from factuality models, to train the summarizer. Our results show that models trained using this approach are inherently more factual than standard training objectives when dealing with error-prone gold datasets.

2 Training Datasets to Compare

In this paper, we focus on evaluating summarization models from two English-language domains: (1) **XSUM**, an "extreme" summarization dataset (Narayan et al., 2018) from British Broadcasting Corporation (BBC) articles, where the first sentence of the article is treated as a summary of the article. These summaries are highly abstractive in nature: summarization models trained on this dataset have to learn to model long-range dependencies and even so may be unable to recover all information in the gold summary. (2) **CNN/DAILYMAIL** (Hermann et al., 2015), a multi-sentence abstractive summary dataset (Nallapati et al., 2016). The level of abstraction in this dataset is considerably lower and reference summaries exhibit high overlap with source articles (Zhang et al., 2018).

For both these domains, we compare error type distributions and factuality models' performance (discussed in Section 4) across two different synthetic sources of training data.

2.1 Entity-centric Synthetic Data (Ent-C)

A recent thread of work has focused on leveraging synthetic data for evaluating factuality (Kryscinski et al., 2020), imposing decoding-time constraints (Zhao et al., 2020), or post-correction of summaries (Cao et al., 2020). Figure 1 illustrates this process: these approaches apply transformations to either the source article (shown) or a reference summary to obtain a corrupted summary (*Ohio* instead of *Norfolk*). These are treated as non-factual, while gold summaries are treated as factual.

We call this approach **entity-centric** because the transformations largely focus on perturbing entities and noun phrases and addressing these types of hallucinations. The approach from Kryscinski et al. (2020) has the broadest set of transformations out of this prior work, so we follow them to generate training examples representative of this class of techniques. The data corruptions or transformations included are entity and number swapping, pronoun swapping, sentence negation, and arbitrary noise injection. Additionally, backtranslation is used to paraphrase summaries and further augment the dataset.

For CNN/DM, we use a dataset of 50k labeled pairs that is a subset of the data distributed by Kryscinski et al. (2020); this subset is sufficient to reproduce the performance of their factuality classifier. We generate a similarly-sized dataset for XSUM. Note that although the data creation procedure produces sentence-level annotations, since

data corruptions are introduced in a rule-based manner, we can highlights spans within the summaries where the error was actually introduced to get span-level factuality annotations as well. Figure 1 illustrates these spans in red. The figure also demonstrates how to obtain dependency-level factuality judgements from error span highlights; what these mean and how these are derived is explained in Section 2.2 and 2.3 respectively.

2.2 Generation-centric Synthetic Data (Gen-C)

Goyal and Durrett (2020a) introduce a different method for obtaining factuality annotations that more closely align with errors made by generation models. The core assumption of their **generation-centric** approach (see Figure 1) is that generated summaries/paraphrases at the bottom of a beam (the 10-best paraphrase) are more likely to contain factual errors than 1-best generations, and new information in these generations can be labeled non-factual. Moreover, these generations align with realistic errors made by generation models, unlike purely synthetic entity swaps. In addition to sentence-level annotations, their approach also extracts **factuality labels corresponding to each dependency arc of the generated summary**. According to their definition, an arc is factual (or entailed) if the semantic relationship described by that particular dependency arc is entailed by the source article. Figure 1 shows a non-factual *created* $\rightarrow$ *necklace* collapsed dependency arc.

To adapt their data creation approach for our experimental setting, we generated paraphrases of gold summaries using the same paraphrase generation model from their work (Goyal and Durrett, 2020b), to follow their setting as closely as possible. We use the 10th-best generated summaries to generate both sentence-level and dependency-level annotations automatically. See Figure 1 for an example of this process. We generate 40k training examples for both CNN/DM and XSUM domains.

2.3 Types of supervision

The two techniques, Ent-C and Gen-C, naturally generate annotations at different levels. We take steps to unify these formats to enable apples-to-apples comparison of them.

For Ent-C as well as human-labeled data (discussed later), we have access to span highlights within the summary that are non-factual with respect to the source article. From these, we can derive dependency-level annotations in the following way: for each arc in the summary, if either the head word or the child word is highlighted as unfaithful/non-factual, the dependency arc is annotated as non-factual. Otherwise, the arc is factual. This process is demonstrated in Figure 1.

Dataset Source	Sent-level	Word-level	Dep-level
Ent-C	✓	✓	✓^{d}
Gen-C	✓		✓
HUMAN-XSUM	✓	✓	✓^{d}

Table 1: Summary of the annotations available for each training dataset. ✓ indicates that annotations at that granularity can be directly obtained from the data creation process. ✓^{d} indicates that annotations can be derived.

Table 1 gives a summary of the type of annotations available for the 3 types of training datasets. Mapping Gen-C dependency-level annotations to word-level classification decisions is less well-defined, so we do not attempt to do this. Our focus in this work will be on training sentence-level and dependency-level classification models, which we see is possible on all our sources of data.

3 Discussion of Error Types

We start by qualitatively analyzing the actual errors produced by summarization models to see how these align with the synthetic data. We identify 3 broad categories of errors (see Figure 2), described below. Each of these categories is further divided into **Intrinsic** (errors that arise as a result of misinterpreting information from the source article) and **Extrinsic** (errors that hallucinate *new* information or facts not present in the source article), following the characterization from Maynez et al. (2020).

1. **Entity-Related**: errors specifically related to surface realization of named entities, quantities, dates, etc. Hallucination of new entities is an extrinsic error; incorrectly combining distinct entities from the source article is an intrinsic error (*Paul Telstra* in Figure 2).

2. **Event-Related**: errors with incorrect claims about events in the summary, such as predicates with arguments filled by incorrect entities. Hallucinations of new events (*held a press conference* in Figure 2) are extrinsic; mixed-up attributes from within the source article are intrinsic (*apple lawyer never claimed* in Figure 2, incorrect agent).

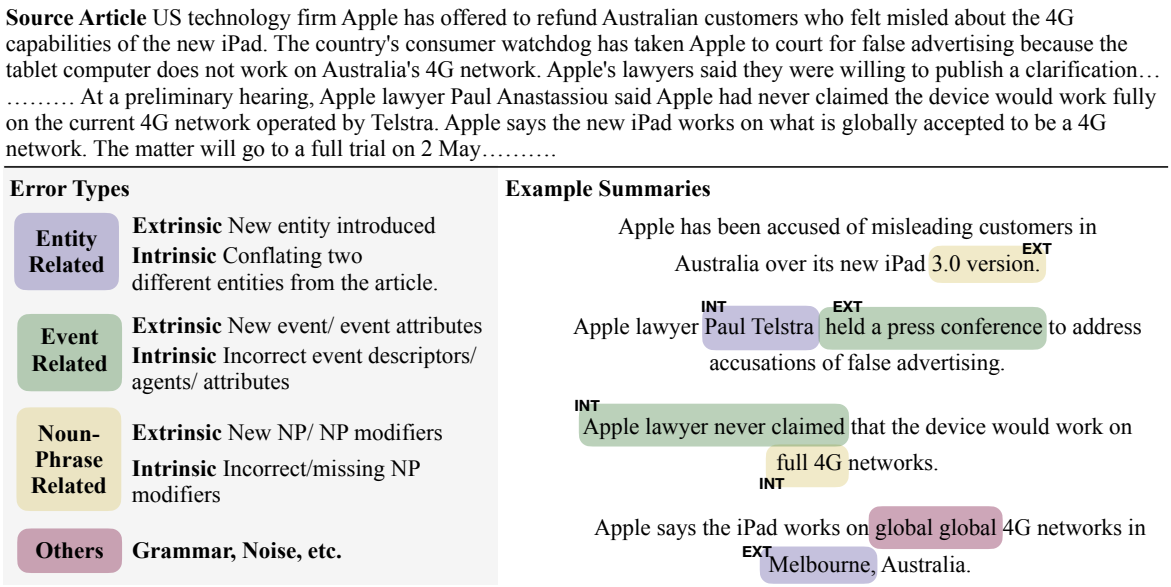

Figure 2: Taxonomy of error types considered in our manual annotation. On the right are example summaries with highlighted spans corresponding to the error types; the first summary is an actual BART generated summary while others are manually constructed representative examples.

3. **Noun Phrase-Related**: errors related to noun phrases other than the entity-specific errors. Examples include hallucinating new NP modifiers (extrinsic) or combining with a wrong modifier from the article (intrinsic).

4. **Other Errors**: errors such as ungrammatical text, repeated words, highly convoluted or erroneous claims, etc. that don't fall into one of the above categories.

Our taxonomy of summarization errors differs from those of Lux et al. (2020): theirs is targeted at the effects on the reader, whereas ours is more directly tied to the grammatical role of the error, and we believe more useful for system designers to improve their systems. We use the above taxonomy to annotate examples from both summarization domains. For XSUM, we use the state-of-the-art BART model (Lewis et al., 2020) to generate summaries followed by manual annotation (100 examples). For CNN/DM, annotation was done on the 50 summaries across 10 different models collected by Kryscinski et al. (2020). We additionally do this annotation for the artificially introduced errors in Ent-C and Gen-C.

Figure 3 shows the distribution of errors for these different settings. First, we see that **summarization models from different domains make substantially different types of errors**. Models trained on XSUM learn to hallucinate new content and consequently produce extrinsic errors (60% of the errors made by BART models are extrinsic). This is due to the fact that the XSUM data was automatically constructed and contains gold summaries that are noisy or non-factual (75% of gold summaries, according to Maynez et al. (2020)). In addition to this, the gold summaries are also highly abstractive, and **XSum-trained summarization models learn to combine information from different parts of an article**, leading to models making long-range dependency errors. This is evident from the error distribution graph: 40% of the errors are due to misinterpretation of content in the article (intrinsic errors).

On the other hand, the CNN/DM summarization datasets contain human written gold summaries and are therefore generally much more reliable. The models trained on this dataset reflects that. Only 14% of the generated summaries contains errors in the CNN/DM validation set from (Kryscinski et al., 2020). Of these 14%, **the bulk of the errors produced are intrinsic errors**, primarily event-related caused by sentence compression or fusion, which is common in this dataset (Lebanoff et al., 2019). For example, *the two delaware boys are in critical condition at the U.S. Virgin Islands* should instead be *..at the hospital after a trip to the...* The generation models rarely makes extrinsic hallucinations, and these are even less common in recent systems like PEGASUS (Zhang et al., 2020a).

Comparing these with synthetic error distributions, we can see that **synthetic datasets do not**

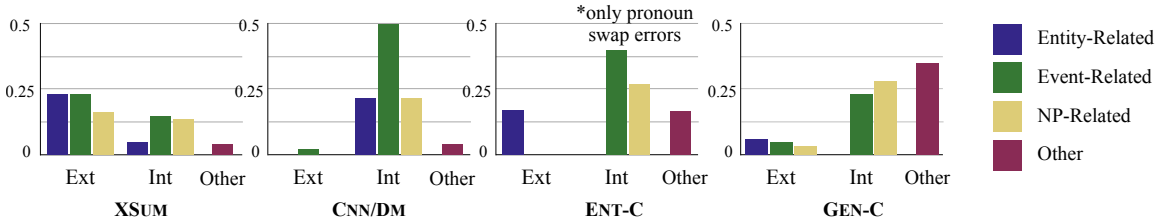

Figure 3: Fractions of examples in each dataset exhibiting different error types (note a single example may have multiple errors). The graphs show a significant mismatch between the error distributions of actual generation models and artificially introduced data corruptions.

capture the error distributions of actual generation models. To the extent that Ent-C covers intrinsic event-related errors, these are almost exclusively from pronoun swaps. Later (in Section 5.1), we provide further evidence of this mismatch for both datasets: models trained on this synthetic data perform poorly when evaluated on actual generation errors.

4 Factuality Models to Compare

Next, we investigate how factuality models trained on these synthetic datasets perform on real generation errors. Given a document D, a factuality model predicts whether all the information in a generated summary S is supported by the source document D.[2] We consider two factuality modeling formulations: (1) a **Sentence-Factuality** model that makes a factuality judgment at the entire summary-level, and (2) an **Arc-Factuality** model (Goyal and Durrett, 2020a) that makes independent factuality judgments for dependency arcs of the generated summary, which are then combined to obtain a sentence-level decision. This helps in localizing factuality errors and was shown to be more effective than sentence-level models in prior work.

4.1 Sentence-Factuality Model

Prior work (Kryscinski et al., 2020) used a BERT-based sequence-pair classification model (Devlin et al., 2019) as follows: the source document D and the generated summary S are concatenated and fed into a pre-trained transformer encoder model (BERT, ELECTRA, etc.). The representation of the [CLS] token is fed into a linear and softmax layer that outputs a probability distribution over the output labels ($y = \{\text{Factual, Non-Factual}\}$). This model can be trained on any data with sentence-level factuality labels.

[2]Factuality is ill-defined: whether inferences, world knowledge, implicatures, etc. are viewed as factual is not standardized and is dependent on human annotators for each dataset or task. However, existing generation models only rarely exhibit tricky cases along these dimensions.

4.2 Arc-Factuality model

The **Dependency Arc Entailment (DAE)** model (Goyal and Durrett, 2020a) evaluates factuality at the dependency level (see Figure 4): first, the generated summary S is dependency-parsed (Manning et al., 2014). Then, an independent factuality judgment is rendered per arc that predicts whether the relationship/phenomenon described by the particular dependency arc is entailed by the source. This judgment is made by concatenating the document D and the generated summary S, feeding them through a pre-trained encoder, then extracting a representation for each (head, child) arc and feeding it into a classification layer to output a probability distribution over the output labels ($y_i = \{\text{Factual, Non-Factual}\}$). **Sentence-level** judgments are extracted from these arc-level decisions: if *any* dependency arc is non-factual, the generated summary is labeled as non-factual.

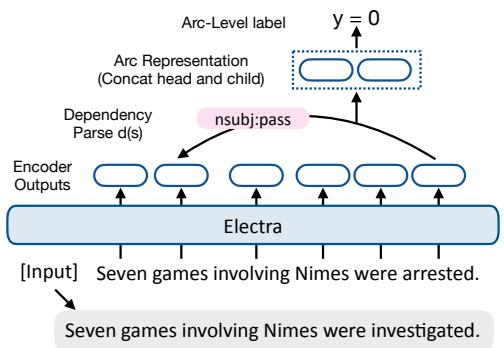

Figure 4: The dependency arc entailment (DAE) model from (Goyal and Durrett, 2020a). A pre-trained encoder is used to obtain arc representations; these are used to predict arc-level factuality decisions.

The DAE model is trained from arc-labeled examples, of the form $(D, S, \{y_a\}_{a \in d(S)})$. These are derived from either synthetic or human-labeled data, as described in Section 2.

DAE with Constraints (DAE-Const) DAE requires gold annotations at the dependency-level for training; however, such these may not always be

available. We extend the DAE framework to address this: sentence-level labels are used to derive arc-level constraints and the models are trained to maximize the marginal likelihood of all labelings that obey these constraints. For a factual example, we know that all arcs in the summary are factual. For a non-factual example, we know that some arc must be non-factual, and we also assume that all arcs also present in the source document are factual. The above constraints are formulated as the following training objective:

$$\mathcal{L} = \log \left[\prod_{a \in F} P_{DAE}(y_a = 1 \mid D, S) \right] + \log \left[1 - \prod_{a \in NF} P_{DAE}(y_a = 1 \mid D, S) \right]$$

In the above equation, F is the set of all arcs that should be factual (contains all arcs with sent-label = 1 and arcs common with the source article for sent-label = 0), and NF is the set of all remaining arcs (NF is empty when sent-label = 1). The second term in the above equation is the probability of predicting at least one non-factual arc in a non-factual summary.[3]

5 Experiments

5.1 Synthetic Dataset Evaluation

CNN/DAILYMAIL First, we compare the performance of the three models (Sent-Factuality, DAE and DAE-constrained) trained on the two synthetic factuality datasets (outlined in Section 2) on the CNN/DAILYMAIL domain. We compare these settings based on their performance on the human-annotated test dataset from Kryscinski et al. (2020). This dataset contains sentence-level factuality judgements for 503 (article, summary) pairs for summaries generated using 10 different generation models. We use the validation set provided by the authors to choose the best model checkpoint across all settings. Similar to the original paper, we report **class balanced accuracy values**. Table 2 outlines our results.

The results show that models trained on Ent-C perform slightly better than those trained on Gen-C, but many of the systems are in the same range, with accuracy values of around 75%. However, the reported accuracy values on held-out Ent-C/Gen-C examples is consistently over 90% (results included in the Appendix). This demonstrates that while the factuality datasets are able to fit the synthetic data distributions well, these are inherently different from actual generation errors. The Appendix also includes graphs of how the human annotated dev set performance varies with training iterations, showing that constant performance on the held-out training set corresponds with highly fluctuating performance on the human annotated data, further indicating that these settings are not identical.

	Ent-C	Gen-C
Majority Label	50	50
Kryscinski et al. (2020)	74.1	-
Sent-Factuality	72.3	64.4
DAE	**76.7**	**72.1**
DAE-const	75.2	71.1

Table 2: Label-balanced accuracy of factuality models when trained on synthetic factuality training datasets in the CNN/DAILYMAIL domain.

XSUM Next, we similarly evaluate the synthetic datasets and factuality models on the more challenging XSUM domain. Again, we evaluate on a human annotated dataset collected by prior work (Maynez et al., 2020). The dataset contains span highlights indicating hallucinated/incorrect content or information with respect to the source article for 4 different summarization models trained on the XSUM domain (as well as for gold summaries). Figure 1 illustrates this. Similar to prior work, if any word in a summary is marked as hallucinated, we mark the sentence as non-factual. Therefore, for XSUM-HUMAN, the annotation is available at both the sentence-level and span-level.

In total, this dataset contains 2500 (A, S) pairs (along with their factuality labels). We use 500 examples from these to construct our test dataset. The remaining 2000 examples are used to train models, explained in Section 5.2.

Train Data	Majority	Sent-Fact	DAE	DAE-const
Ent-C	50	50.9	51.2	53.6
Gen-C	50	54.2	53.0	51.6

Table 3: Performance of factuality models when trained on synthetic factuality datasets in the XSUM domain.

Table 3 outlines the results. Unlike on CNN/DM, we see that all models trained on synthetic factuality datasets perform very poorly, achieving close

[3] This techniques resembles posterior regularization (Ganchev et al., 2010); however, these constraints are enforced in a hard way on individual examples rather than in expectation at the corpus level. It can also be viewed as an instance of constraint-driven learning (Chang et al., 2007).

to the majority label baseline. Again, the performance on the held-out synthetic datasets was observed to be very high (see Appendix). **There is a fundamental different between the errors that are produced by XSUM summarization models and those introduced by artificial data corruption mechanisms.** Other data is needed to train factuality models in this setting.

5.2 Human Annotated Dataset Evaluation

To investigate whether human annotated data is useful to train factuality models, we train our 3 factuality models on the remaining 2000 human annotated examples from XSUM-HUMAN. In order to train DAE model on this dataset, we use the span highlights to obtain dependency-level gold annotations, using the same strategy from 2.3 (illustrated in Figure 1).

Model	Sent-Factuality	DAE	DAE-const
Balanced-Acc	65.6	**78.7**	70.9

Table 4: Comparison of different factuality models when trained on human annotated data and evaluated on XSUM (compare to Table 3). Fine-grained annotations provide a big boost in performance.

The results are shown in Table 4. Comparing these with results from Table 3, we see that a small number of human annotated examples can outperform large auto-generated training datasets by a large margin. Furthermore, we see that **availability of fine-grained factuality annotations significantly boosts performance**, with models that leverage that information (DAE) significantly outperforming sentence-level models. Even in the absence of fine-grained annotations, we see that the DAE-const model that decomposes the error computation and explicitly tries to localize errors is better than the sentence-level model.

However, **these factuality models do not transfer to CNN/DM**: the best model achieves an accuracy of 55.9, substantially lower than 76.7% in Table 2. This demonstrates that summarization models make different types of errors on different domains, and data collection and modelling efforts for factuality should account for these differences.

6 Localization of errors

6.1 Localizing Factuality on XSUM

Our evaluation so far has focused on sentence-level performance of different models. Here, we evaluate the models' ability to localize errors at two granularity levels: (1) **Dependency arc-level** and (2) **Word-level**.[4] Table 5 outlines the results of our experiments.

Model	Precision	Recall	F1
Dependency-level			
DAE	69.7	78.2	73.7
DAE-const	54.9	76.6	63.9
Word-level			
DAE	57.5	74.7	65.0
DAE-const	56.2	62.3	59.1
DAE (best-ckpt)	62.0	83.9	71.3

Table 5: Error localization comparison of the different factuality models. The DAE model achieves high recall for both word-level and dependency-level factuality.

The DAE model outperforms the DAE-constrained model at both levels of granularity. This reiterates our earlier claim that **fine-grained annotations lead to better factuality models with more reliable localization**. However, the DAE-constrained model is able to achieve comparable recall at the dependency-level; both models are more recall-oriented, which is desirable for certain applications.

For Section 6.2, we select our DAE model's best checkpoint on the test data (**best-ckpt**), which achieves a recall of 83.9, a significant gain if we directly optimize for this metric.

6.2 Downstream Applications

Localizing errors potentially allows for post-hoc correction (Zhao et al., 2020; Cao et al., 2020); however, repairing a summary to be fully factual is a very hard problem, and past work has focused on a subset of errors as a result. Instead, we show that even our imperfect error localization techniques can be used to meaningfully improve the *training* data for summarization. We use our DAE model to identify unsupported facts in the XSUM training data and ignore the corresponding tokens when training our summarization model.

Our Approach Summarization models are trained to maximize the log likelihood of the summary given the source article: $\mathcal{L} = \sum_{i=1:|S|} \log p(S_i|A, S_{1:i-1})$. When a word in the summary is non-factual, training on it encourages the model to hallucinate new content. In our approach, we modify the training objective

[4] We can approximately extract word-level decision from the dependency-level predictions: if any arc containing word w is non-factual, then w is non-factual; otherwise, it is factual.

Model	Word-ER ↓	Sent-ER ↓	Human ↑
Baseline	32.2	74.0	37.4
Loss trunc	31.1	70.9	39.1
DAE-based (ours)	**23.7**	**61.4**	**46.5**

Table 6: Comparison of the different summarization models. Our proposed approach achieves significantly lower word error rates, sentence error rates and are rated higher by human annotators.

to only maximize the likelihood of *factual* words in the summary, factuality being determined by the DAE model from the previous sections: $\mathcal{L} = \sum_{i=1:|S|} M_i \log p(S_i|A, S_{1:i-1})$ where $M_i = 1$ if the word w_i is factual, otherwise $M_i = 0$. A similar objective has been used by prior work (Song et al., 2020b) to encourage the model to generate outputs using words present in the source.

We compare our approach with two systems: a baseline model trained without this masking and a model using the loss truncation technique well-suited for noisy datasets from Kang and Hashimoto (2020). All models are trained on 50k examples using BART summarization model initialized from the BART-XSUM-LARGE checkpoint. For all these approaches, summaries generated on the original XSUM test set (11,334 exs) are compared.

Evaluation First, we evaluate the performance of the models using our trained DAE model. That is, we generate summaries for all examples in the test set using the three models, the DAE model is then used to compute the word error rate (fraction of words determined to be non-factual according to the DAE model) and the sentence error rate (fraction of sentences determined to be non-factual). Table 6 outlines the results, which show that our DAE-masked training leads to better factuality performance.

Next, we perform human evaluation to compare the factuality of summaries generated by the three models using Amazon Mechanical Turk. We randomly sampled 50 articles from the test set and generated summaries corresponding to the 3 models. We asked 7 human annotators to classify each (article, summary) pair as either factual (score = 1) or non-factual (score = 0). An average score is computed for each summary by aggregating the 7 annotator scores. Table 6 reports the average summary scores for the 50 (article, summary) pairs across the 3 summarization models. The results show that the proposed approach outperforms both the baseline model and the loss truncation approach. This demonstrates that **factuality models trained on a small number of annotated examples can be used to train *factual* summarization models, even when the underlying summarization dataset is noisy**.

7 Related Work

Earlier work on abstraction (Barzilay et al., 1999; Carenini and Cheung, 2008) and compression (Knight and Marcu, 2000; Berg-Kirkpatrick et al., 2011; Woodsend and Lapata, 2012; Durrett et al., 2016) in summarization has typically focused evaluation on content selection and grammaticality, with little heed paid to factuality. Human evaluation similarly focused on content selection (Gillick and Liu, 2010). Methods such as Pyramid (Nenkova and Passonneau, 2004) that could have in principle been used to evaluate factuality were primarily used to understand which models are effective at content selection.

Recent work has explore different methods for enforcing and correcting factuality: modifying the model, such as encoding SRL structures in the input (Cao et al., 2018), post-hoc correction (Dong et al., 2020), or constraints in decoding (Song et al., 2020a; Mao et al., 2020). However, these techniques fundamentally struggle to handle the whole range of factual errors; factuality is a fuzzy notion, hard to evaluate, and cannot be easily encapsulated into a set of discrete constraints.

Faithfulness and factuality have also been tackled in related tasks, including summarizing radiology reports (Zhang et al., 2020b) and data-to-text generation tasks (Tian et al., 2019). A line of recent work has looked at fact verification (Thorne et al., 2018; Nie et al., 2019; Atanasova et al., 2020). In this literature, the claims are usually human-authored and a straightforward statement of a fact, whereas generated summaries might feature claims buried in nominal modifiers like *two-time winner*.

8 Conclusion

In this work, we showed that existing synthetic datasets are not well-suited to factuality evaluation for summarization with recent models (like BART) in challenging settings (like XSUM). Models trained on human-annotated data can enable training of more factual summarization models. We hope further work will explore better modeling and data creation to address the pressing errors in current systems.

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